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A SHORT HISTORY OF THE CHINESE REVOLUTION

Chapter 1:

Decline of the Manchu Empire

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Chapter 1: Decline of the Manchu Empire

I

In the early cold morning of December 2, 1908, a remarkable imperial ceremony was held in Peking, in which Henry Pu-yi, a Manchu child of three, was ~~ascended to the throne~~ as the new ruler of the Chinese empire, which ruled then more than four million square miles and four hundred million souls. As the child could not stand the sternness of the ceremony, which was more ceremonious than the ~~religious~~ Easter service in a Catholic cathedral, the young emperor cried and kicked ceaselessly on the big throne decorated with nine gold dragons in front of hundreds of colorfully dressed kneeling mandarins. Holding the child to sit still while standing by his side, the Prince Regent, Tsai-li, coaxed the crying emperor by saying repeatedly, "Don't cry, Your Majesty. This will end soon...this will end soon...." This coaxing sounded a bad omen for His Majesty's regime as really believed by many a superstitious mandarins attending the ceremony. Within three years after the ceremony, His Majesty's regime "ended" with the outbreak of a revolution on October 10, 1911, the hsin-hai ke-ming, as the Chinese called it, of which references may be found in any encyclopedia.

Regardless of the fact that the Revolution of 1911 has established the first republic in the Far East and brought to an end the monarchical system, which had been practiced in China since time immemorial, and that it has physically liberated the head of the Chinese men by cutting off their pig-tails, which they had been forced to wear by the Manchu overlords for nearly three hundred years, and liberated the feet of the Chinese women by unbinding their foot wear, which the Chinese fair sex had suffered for nearly two thousand years, the Revolution failed to bring much changes in the basic structure

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of the traditional Chinese society. For this it has been constantly underrated by the Chinese revolutionists, Nationalists and Communists alike, who have set as their goal to continue the Revolution to a successful end. Thus after half a century has passed since the downfall of the Manchu regime, they still proclaim that they are working on the unfinished "revolution." In view of the revolutionary events in later periods, therefore, we may say that the outbreak of the Revolution of 1911 and the downfall of the Manchu empire were merely the end of a beginning of the protracted Revolution in China, which only God knows will last how long. And the "beginning" began with the traditional dynastic decay of the Manchu imperial regime, the Ch'ing dynasty.

II

Generally speaking, the Revolution of 1911 was a direct result of, as well as the major cause for, the political disintegration of the Manchu regime. First it seemed that in the late nineteenth century the Ch'ing dynasty had reached, like that in a human life, its old age. It was doomed to die a natural death in the traditional way even without a modern revolution. To look back to the long history of imperial China, one may find that ever since the establishment of the first imperial dynasty, the Ch'in, in 221 B.C., most of the powerful imperial dynasties had undergone a process of political growth similar to the life of an ordinary human being with a brilliant youth, a prosperous middle age, and a broken old age leading to his death. After the downfall of a dynasty, a new one of similar political structure would grow up upon its predecessor's ruins, and then repeated the cycle. And none of the imperial dynasties was able to live up to its three-hundredth anniversary. It is interesting to note, moreover, that several of the old imperial dynasties, such as the T'ang (618-907 A.D.) and the Ming (1368-1644 A. D.), which were institutionally similar to the Ch'ing dynasty (1644-1911), died almost at the

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same old age. The T'ang lasted 289 years, the Ming, 276, and the Ch'ing 268.

These were not mere coincidences. Traditional interpretation of the inevitable dynastic decay proposed by the old guard Chinese historians was that the later rulers and their officials of a dynasty were usually spoiled by the prosperity created by their ancestors, so they gradually slipped away from the rules which their forefathers had set up for them. Consequently their imperial government was gradually weakened by universal corruption and inefficiency. This led the people to revolt against their rulers so that a new and efficient dynasty might be built in obedience to the Will of Heaven.

Modern social scientists, however, are able to determine more specifically the basic causes of the inevitable dynastic decay. One of the fundamental factors may be found in the peculiar nature of the traditional Chinese society, which had perpetuated its basic features for millennia without substantial change until the twentieth century. The nation, which was built upon a special type of agrarian society, was ruled by a professional bureaucracy and there was no important secondary social classes which were based on mobile and immobile private property. In this kind of society, therefore, control of over the state apparatus rather than the manipulation of private property created supreme power, prestige, and wealth. Thus the bureaucratic government usually played the most decisive role for the stability of the society and of the nation. After an absolute rule of hundreds of years, however, the bureaucratic institutions including the imperial governments on various levels as well as the imperial armed forces gradually were incapacitated by a universal corruption which was merely a natural result of the growth of an unchecked total power and which began, as a rule, with a corrupt palace life of its rulers.

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In the Ch'ing dynasty, we see the symptom of dynastic decay begin during the Ch'ien-lung period (1736 to 1795). Ascending to the throne at twenty-four, the notorious Emperor Ch'ien-lung enjoyed an active life until eighty-seven. For more than sixty years he ruled China as an absolute monarch. And like most of the mighty rulers in the history of China, Ch'ien-lung was fond of territorial conquest as well as luxurious palace life. During his reign, he had launched ten remarkable military campaigns against Chinese rebels and frontier tribes, which greatly exhausted the national resources, though extended the frontiers of his empire to Central Asia. Besides, successive military operations also caused the shift of governmental power from the traditional Imperial Cabinet to a military board, commonly known as the Grand Council, which was subject to closer control of the notorious monarch rather than to learned statesmen of the nation.

Coupling with these conquests, the Emperor conducted six luxurious, nay, destructive and oppressive, imperial tours from Peking to the Yangtze valley along the Grand Canal for no other purpose than personal pleasure, which caused the people along the route suffer from cradle to grave and exhausted more than two hundred million taels from the national revenue. Thus both the unnecessary conquests and the expensive imperial tours had greatly promoted the misuse of the unchecked total power and encouraged the growth of a universal corruption within the frame of the imperial government.

Next on the line of corruption under the notorious emperor was inevitably his state ministers. For a service in the government for twenty years, for instance, a state minister by the name of Ho-shen was reported to have robbed the public treasury eight hundred million taels of silver which was equal to the total national revenue of eleven and a half years put together; or twice as much as the war indeminity that China had agreed to pay to the Western Powers after the Boxers Rebellion in 1900.

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Similar corruption had incapacitated the national communication system as well as most of the public safety devices, such as the irrigation system, canals, postal routes, and public granaries. Examples may be found in the administration of the control of the Yellow River, which was traditionally source of the most dangerous natural calamity in China since time immemorial. For the control of the River, the imperial government had set a big portion in the annual national budget and created a special office, the River Commissioner, to take care of the dikes. From the Ch'ien-lung period on, however, this office had become the most corrupt institution in the imperial system. Appointed Commissioners, who were inevitably favorites of the most powerful officials in the imperial court, lived a corrupt life which sometimes surpassed the royal family. It was reported, for instance, ~~that~~ when a certain River Commissioner was giving a notorious dinner to his guests, fifty pigs were killed for the preparation of a single dish of broiled pork, because only one once of the "best meat" was taken from each pig. Thus it almost became open secrets in the late Ch'ing period that the river commissioners of various ranks, whose official duty was to upkeep the national net work of irrigation system, not only neglected their work, but sometimes purposely let the rivers overflow so that they might write off the excessive expenses which they had robbed from the public treasury. Corruptions were likewise found in the managements of canals, postal routes, public granaries, etc., all of which were essential to the safety of the nation as a whole.

In the late Ch'ing period, corruption had paralyzed the civil service system, particularly the praisworthy civil examination system. Government degrees and offices were sold in open markets like stocks to racketeers who made personal fortune by robbing the public through purchasing a position in the government. With the collapse of the civil service system, law of the nation could never be effectively enforced. The government's incapability in its prohibition of opium in the 1830's, for instance, had actually encouraged the smuggling of the drug, which at last led to the first war, the Opium War (1839-1842), between China and Great Britain.

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Corruption also immobilized the imperial armed forces. The Manchu Banner Army, which was so invincible during its conquest of China in the middle of the 17th century, turned out to be unusable in the middle of the 19th when they were butchered like cattle and sheep by the Taiping rebels. The final suppression of the Taiping Rebellion (1850-1863) by the native Chinese local troops, moreover, did not prove that the Chinese natives were more efficient than their Manchu overlords in the operation of a despotic government. Corruption infected the new Chinese armes in no less degree than in the old Banner Armies. During the first Sino-Japanese War of 1894-1895, foreign gunners in the modern Chinese navy found that bags of sand rather than gun powder were stored in the amunition compartment in the powerful Chinese battleships commanded by young officers just returned from an excellent training in England.

To make a long story short, after two centuries of growth without check and balance, the bureaucratic machinery in the imperial regime had deteriorated beyond repair. It was an institutional decay of a particular form of government in a particular form of agrarian society, for which even enlightened monarchs and honest reformist ministers were unable to repair. Thus the survival of the nation demanded its total destruction, so that the cycle might be repeated.

III

The deterioration of a professional bureaucracy on the upper level coincided with the mounting of social problems underneath. During the early Ch'ing period, internal peace and order for two centuries had trebled the Chinese population, which reached about 430,000,000 by 1850. While the technique of agrarian production and the size of cultivated land remained as they were before, overpopulation kept the peasantry near the margin of

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subsistance even in years of good harvest. As living standards had obviously risen in the earlier centuries, they were forced down gradually in the 19th.

The problem of overpopulation became more serious with the growth of a bureaucratic landlordism which was an inevitable byproduct of a deteriorated bureaucracy in the government. As land was almost the only subject that attracted capital investment in an agrarian society, the large amount of capital provided by corrupt government officials automatically raised the land price, which gradually destroyed the self-generating landowning system of small holders in the rural area and helped the concentration of land holding, tenancy and absentee landlordism.

Big bureaucratic landlords increased in number as the bureaucracy continued to deteriorate. A single bureaucratic landlord, in the 1840's such as Ch'i-shan, a Manchu marquis, who had served as state minister and provincial governor, could own as much as two million mu of cultivated land. The increase of land concentration naturally widened the gaps among classes in the rural society. Free peasants gradually lost their economic independence under a system of semi-serfdom, in which they were bound to their master's land for generations.

The sufference of the peasantry was further deepened by the increase of foreign imports and the rise of urban industry in China. They jointly wiped off most of the handicraft industry in the country side, which was previously indispensible to the livelihood of the poor peasants. All these had helped to creat unemployed masses in every corner of the nation. Thus a serious calamity either caused by nature or by human reasons could easily lead to a peasants uprising and bring the situation beyond the control of the corrupt and inefficient government, which could neither offer the proper relief as a benevelent despotism should, nor kill them in the way a modern totalitarian state does.

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Even in the uprising-free years, moreover, the people in the country side by no means could free themselves from the exploitation of the local banditry, which was merely a natural product of unemployed masses. In the last years of the Manchu regime, banditry had developed to such a surprising extent as that in certain areas organized bandits even outnumbered the normal residents. It was reported that in most districts, if not all, of Kwangsi province more than fifty per cent of its local population had become organized bandits. When the native populace had little left to be robbed, the local bandits launched seasonal raids into the neighboring provinces, Hunan and Kwangtung. Similar instances were said to have existed in many northern provinces such as Honan and Shantung.

The immediate byproduct of banditry was the emergence of local militias which were organized by the people to protect their own families while the government had failed to do the same. These local troops, if not effectively managed as it was always the case, would cause more damage to the rural society and reduce its productivity. And their chieftains would gradually become the inevitable regional warlords. As their own interests dictated, they could either help or jeopardize the government's effort to suppress the local rebellions, which ~~might be~~ were either self-organized by the local masses or directed by modern revolutionists. In either case, they would only add more trouble to the chaos and help to bring down the rotten imperial dynasty.

Such were the basic factors that had brought down most of the ancient imperial dynasties and such were the phenomenon we found in the late Ch'ing period. Unlike that of its predecessors, however, the collapse of the Manchu regime had been further complicated by some Western-oriented factors, namely, and modern nationalism ~~and~~ the influence of Western ideology and institutions.

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IV

The multiple challenge imposed on China by Western nations formed, apart from anything traditional, another peculiar feature characterizing the downfall of the Manchu regime. After the Opium War, while the mandarins were unable to prevent the bureaucracy from deterioration, they could not resist either the growth of new institutions under Western influence. Thus the decline and growth occurred side by side.

The first Chinese response to the Western challenge was the gradual adoption of the Western technology the superiority of which had won Chinese recognition through a series of wars. Since few Chinese had forseen until the 1890's that their political and social systems also needed an overhaul along the Western line, the principal theme guarding the initial response to Western influence was, "Chinese learning for fundamental principles, Western learning for practical application," a maxim, which was first formulated by a modern thinker, Feng Kuei-fen, in 1860, and later maximed by another thinker and statesman, Chang Chih-tung, in 1898. The suppression of the Taiping Rebellion (1850-1863) confirmed this belief, because the quasi-Christian revolution of the Taipings was suppressed by the Chinese army led by Confucian intellectuals with the assistance of Western technology.

From 1865 on, therefore, the imperial government had established in various sea ports and inland cities scores of modern industries, such as arsenals, dockyards, machine factories, telegraph lines, coal mines, railways, steam ship lines, cotton mills, etc. At the beginning the government operated them alone, but they were soon turned over to merchants for operation under government supervision. This system, known as kuan-tu shang-pan (official supervision, merchant operation), which characterized the initial phase of industrialization movement in China, lasted nearly thirty years from 1865 to 1895.

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In view of the scope of reconstruction during the post-Taiping period, which was known as the T'ung-chih Restoration, we may feel safe to make the observation that had the Manchu government then been as efficient as it was in the K'ang-hsi period (1662-1722), when the efficiency of the buresmcratic machinery was at its peak, industrialization in China might not have to wait for another century until the 1960's. Unfortunately, for a generation of operation, not a single enterprise under the kuan-tu shang-pan system could be judged as successful in a modern sense. Among many of the factors leading to their failure was the fact that the government had turned every firm under its "supervision" a sort of bureaucratic office, commonly known as yamen. It was merely a new branch office in the old corrupt system, which was subject to the general current of inevitable dynastic decay.

The Chinese industrial failure in the late 19th century unfortunately coincided with the rapid development of commercial and colonial expansion of the Western imperialistic nations. Chinese immobility had encouraged foreign economic encroachment on her under a fixed tariff system; and the vice versa was equally true and effective. Although after 1895, the kuan-tu shang-pan system had given ground to free enterprise without government interference, the Treaty of Shimonoseki, which China signed with Japan in the same year, also gave the same privilege to foreign financiers to establish factories on the Chinese soil. This new agreement with foreign powers put the inexperienced and poorly financed Chinese industry in a cut-throat competition not only with the unlimited import trade but with the more experienced and better financed foreign factories operated in China. This new development in fact also caused the urban bourgeois class in China, which had been slowly growing ever since the opening of the Five Ports in the 1840's, become discontent with the Manchu imperial government.

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It was during these thirty years of industrial failure, moreover, China had been humiliated by a series of foreign wars and by the negotiations of unequal treaties, through which all of her tributary states together with thousands of miles of territories along her frontiers were taken away. The foreign powers even arbitrarily divided the China proper into their spheres of influence. International wars were fought on the Chinese soil without China's participation.

Behind bloody bayonets, foreign economic expansion in China caused the country suffer further from an unbalanced foreign trade. Ever since 1876, import trade in China had constantly exceeded the export. In the year of 1905, when the first revolutionary league among the Chinese was organized in Tokyo, import trade in China totaling 447,100,791 taels was nearly two times the export trade totaling only 227,888,197 taels. The unfavorable figures in other years may not be as distinct as this, but the trend had been maintained for more than a generation without relief. Thus even the foreign trade alone was enough to ruin China financially, not to say that a large amount of the imported commodities was opium. In 1905, for instance, 51,890 piculs (about 3100 tons) of foreign opium were imported to China. At the peak of the opium trade in the late Ch'ing period, which fell in 1888, 82,612 piculs (about 5,000 tons) were imported. If a few pounds of narcotic drugs smuggled into the United States today could cause a nationwide alarm, it may not be hard for the reader to imagine what damage foreign opium had done to the Chinese nation while thousands of tons of opium were imported to that country each year for several generations, and how the Chinese felt about them. Even the opium trade alone is enough to give a good explanation to the anti-foreign sentiment of the ignorant masses as expressed during the Boxers Rebellion in 1900. This anti-foreign feeling was later skillfully transferred by modern revolutionists into revolutionary zeal against the Manchus.

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After a Westernized industrialization movement failed to offer any relief to the nation, patriotic intellectuals began to realize that China could not easily adopt Western ways of production without a fundamental remaking of its entire political and social order. This awakening led to the pien-fa or political reform movement under the leadership of K'ang Yu-wei.

A native son of Kwangtung province and like his two famous fellow provincials, Hung Hsiu-ch'uan, chief of the Taiping rebels, and Sun Yat-sen, the modern revolutionary leader, K'ang was deeply influenced by Western ideologies through direct and indirect contact with foreigners in his maritime native province. Unlike Hung and Sun, who had only elementary training in Chinese classics, K'ang Yu-wei was himself a leading classical scholar of the time. He was clever enough to preach his Western ideas through the mouth of Confucius, which was the only way to spread modern teachings among old fashioned Chinese intellectuals.

Although K'ang's political philosophy as expressed in his then unpublished book, Ta-t'ung shu (Book of Great Harmony) was extremely utopian and impractical, his proposal for political reform following the Japanese pattern was timely, practical, and persuasive. As early as 1885, K'ang Yu-wei began, at the age of twenty-seven, his first attempt to submit a memorial to the throne proposing a thorough institutional reform in the imperial government, but he found his edeas too ahead of time. The Chinese-learning-for-principle philosophy of the time still overshadowed him. K'ang was thus looked upon as insane and his memorial was not presented.

what were they?

Ten years later, however, China was defeated by Japan, which, though a small country, had been thoroughly Westernized. The tide now had turned in K'ang's favor. He went to Peking, the capital, with a famous disciple, Liang Ch'i-ch'ao, a young scholar and persuasive writer in his early twenties.

They secured 1,300 signatures from young scholars from various provinces, who were then staying in Peking to attend the imperial examination, and submitted another memorial to the throne proposing for immediate political reform and a thorough reorganization of the imperial institutions. This famous memorial won for K'ang and Liang a nationwide applause, which formally ignited the pien-fa movement.

Two years later K'ang wrote another memorial urging the young Emperor Kwang-hsu to take as his model the Meiji Emperor of Japan and Peter the Great of Russia so and to carry on the proposed political reform. The young Emperor was deeply moved. Consequently K'ang, Liang, and half a dozen of reformist young scholars were given special official status to assist the Emperor to do the work. The reformist Emperor even intended to make a personal tour to study modern institutions in the Western nations as Peter the Great had done before.

In early summer of 1898, with the assistance of the young reformists, the Emperor formally started the reform movement. Dozens of important edicts leading toward fundamental changes of the imperial system were issued within a few days in mid June. Unfortunately the deteriorated imperial dynasty was too rotten to be rebuilt by a series of paper works. Conservative opposition headed by the Dowager Empress, adopted mother of the young Emperor, was too strong to overcome. And the reformist party was too impotent, inexperienced, and even childish to carry on such an ambitious program. The pien-fa movement thus lasted only one hundred days, ended with the sacrifice of six reformist martyrs, who were beheaded on the streets of Peking by the order of the Dowager Empress. The young emperor was put under house arrest within the palace, while both K'ang and Liang were forced to take refugees in Japan, where they continued their reformist preachings.

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Despite the tragical ending of the practical reform, the reformist movement ignited a revolution of political ideas in imperial China which gradually replaced the old philosophy of "Chinese learning for principles, and Western learning for application." The reformist concepts of a Westernized reform deeply rooted in the Chinese heart. As the Manchu conservatives continued to block the reform movement, most reformists and their sympathizers were forced to take a different line of action, which most commonly directed toward the overthrow of the Manchu regime. Thus from the viewpoint of Westernized reform, the loyal reformists and the anti-Manchu revolutionists actually started from the same standpoint and were working on similar program. Their difference lay in the fact that when a handful of reformist leaders were still loyal to the imprisoned Emperor, others thought the Manchus as a whole were hopeless. And they were the fountain of all evils. The Manchu sabotage of the refomist movement was the major factor that revived the traditional anti-Manchu sentiment of the Chinese people, which was gradually transformed into a modern nationalism. It also formed the third feature that characterized the downfall of the Manchu dynasty.

V

From the traditional Chinese point of view, the Ch'ing dynasty was a "foreign" or even "barbarian" regime. The Manchus, who conquered China in 1644, remained as conquerers over the Chinese for nearly three centuries. Although they had from the very beginning of their conquest adopted the Chinese form of government, they forced the Chinese to wear their dresses and custumes with a pig-tail on each man's head, which was a symbol of humiliation to every patriotic Chinese in the early Ch'ing period.

in the Chinese eyes.

as the author of the famed Dream of the Red Chamber were equally respectable

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Intermarriage between these two races were strictly forbidden. Chinese men were not allowed to participate in the national military service, unless they had been "naturalized" by their conquerers. The Manchu troops, known as the Banner Armies, were stationed as garrisons in all strategic cities throughout the nation. The arm bearers lived with their families in separate quarters not to be mixed with the local Chinese residents. Men and women of the entire Manchu race were organized into a military polity known as Banners and all of them lived under government rations as soldiers. None of the Manchus had to work for living. The only thing that a Manchu man had to do was to bear a sword and to watch over the Chinese civilians so that no Chinese rebellion could be organized. Throughout the Manchu dynasty, therefore, the Manchus lived a separate life from the Chinese; and the Manchu oppressors and the oppressed Chinese were distinctively of two different classes.

Although farsighted Manchu rulers had attempted, at the very beginning of their conquest of China, to keep a racial balance in the civil service system, the Manchu personnel as a rule always had an upper hand over their Chinese colleagues. Thus both in the society and in the government, the Chinese were bitter against their foreign rulers, whom they considered as uncivilized "barbarians." According to traditional Confucian political philosophy, it was only for the highly civilized Chinese to rule the barbarians; it could never be the other way round.

After the emergence of the Western "barbarians" in China in the mid 19th century, however, this traditional Chinese cultural nationalism against the Manchus gradually died out. First, it was because after two centuries of peace and prosperity, the Chinese had been accustomed to the Manchu rule, which was in fact not much different from, if not more benevolent than, a native dynasty such as the Ming. The Manchus were no longer uncivilized tribesmen in the Chinese eyes. ~~The Manchu~~ Their emperors and ~~their~~ learned intellectuals such as the author of the famed Dream of the Red Chamber were equally respectable

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in their command of Chinese learnings. Secondly, the striking distinctions between the Chinese and the Westerners had turned the minor distinctions between the Chinese and the Manchus almost invisible and completely unimportant. Forgetting entirely their "barbarian" origin, the Manchus joined the Chinese to denounce the "English barbarians" and the "American Barbarians" as"dogs and sheep." They were just as enthusiastic~~ally~~ as the Chinese in their defense of the Chinese culture against"the fatherless and kingless" Western civilization. Their joint war against the Taiping rebels highlighted the Chinese-Manchu cooperation in defending the Chinese way of life, because the Taipings were supposed to be under the influence of a "barbarian religion." During the progress of the civil war, the Chinese were just as faithful as the Manchus in their support to the imperial government. Chinese loyalty to the Manchu throne was further tested in the period of T'ung-chih Restoration (1862-1874) and in the Reform Movement from 1895 to 1898. It even became fantastic during the Boxers Rebellion of 1900.

VI

In the last years of the Manchu regime, however, continued deterioration of the professional bureaucracy and particularly cruel opposition to reform by conservative Manchu nobles had alienated themselves from the Chinese popular support and led the traditional Chinese nationalism to grow for the second time. Unrealizing that the irreparable dynastic decay was an institutional inevitability, the Chinese put all the blames to the Manchus and thought they were the fountain of all evils. This ~~revived~~ anti-Manchu sentiment, which had revived after the failure of the reform movement and particularly after China's humiliated defeat in the War of Boxers Rebellion in 1900, was further fanned by an imported idiology, the Western nationalism. While the traditional Chinese nationalism was mostly based upon the public ~~feeling~~ pride of cultural superiority, ~~the~~ modern nationalism stressed on racial distinctions. This widened the gap be-

tween the two races and made them irreconciliable.

Under similar influence, unfortunately, a Manchu nationalism was also fermenting among the incompetent but ambitious Manchu nobles, who had stupidly declared that they were rather willing to hand the government over to their "friends" (the Western powers) than to give it back to their "domestic slaves" (the Chinese). Thus after the death of Empress Dowager in 1908, the Manchu control over the central government even became more exclusive than their forefathers had done in the earlier centuries. This Manchu narrow-mindedness even caused the Chinese bureaucrats in the imperial government, who were no less corrupt and backward than their Manchu colleagues, turned to support a racial revolution against the Manchus, and had played a decisive role in the downfall of the Manchu dynasty. Consequently, the Manchus were killed in a revolution as scapegoat, while the revolutionist work for the breakup of the traditional professional bureaucracy was only half done.

VI

To sum this chapter up, we may say that the downfall of the Manchu imperial regime was institutionally irresistible and inevitable, but the people, who were working on the job, were a mixed group and were individuals with mixed feelings. While the great masses at the country side, who had suffered from misgovernment of a declining dynasty, longed only for better rulers or a mere change of dynasty, newly rising bourgeois class in the urban area did want a modern form of government to sponsor free enterprise. As chauvinists merely tried to save the country from becoming a Western colony, ~~racial nationalists~~ racists aimed their fire at the Manchus whatsoever. Modern Confucianists would like a benevolent Chinese empire in lieu of a Manchu monarchy, but opportunistic bureaucrats and arrogent militarists merely intended to fish in the troubled waters for personal power and profit.

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Rolitical reformists all wanted a constitutional monarchy or a parliamentary republican government; democrats under Anglo-American influence preferred a two-party system, while a handful idealistic ~~xmi~~ Socialists, who had been influenced by European Socialists or American Populists, even wanted to work for an early equal distribution of land. Although the downfall of the Manchu regime would offer no practical solution to any important national problems as expected by ~~either~~ any group, it would certainly give partial sentimental satisfaction and hope to all of them. Thus a racial revolution against the Manchus and the establishment of a Chinese government became their common goal, which had held them together in dealing with the Manchu nobles. To locate an overall leader for them whose personality, prestige, and political theory would fit to a majority of the revolutionists, we found the emergence of Sun Yat-sen.

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